recently proposed chronology, Tapa Sardar was probably abandoned in the eighth century; rather than a sudden destructive episode such as an Arab raid causing its abandonment, Verardi and Paparatti (2005: 441–442) described a more gradual process set off by the Chinese Tang rulers' divestment from the region and the consequently more impactful Arab campaigns there. Cf. also Rezakhani 2017: 183–184. The lapse of only two centuries between Tapa Sardar's disuse and the establishment of the Ghaznavid dynasty offers intriguing possibilities regarding the awareness and perhaps reuse of the Buddhist–Brahmanical site by the residents of nearby Ghazna.

50. As of at least the seventh century CE, various sects of Brahmanical Hinduism attracted growing numbers of adherents in eastern Afghanistan, becoming more evident in archaeological finds from Kabul and its vicinity, attributable at least in part due to the westward extension of the Sahis of Kashmir and Panjab. Cf. Rehman 1979: 33–34; Klimburg-Salter 1989: 55–56; Klimburg-Salter 2008: 132; Baker and Allchin 1991: 10ff.; Errington 2017: 43. Studies of Jaina metal sculptures found in the vicinity of Kabul and dating to the sixth and twelfth centuries have provided evidence of Jainism in eastern Afghanistan, likely in the form of traveling Jain merchants: stylistically the recovered sculptures seem to originate in northwestern India (Pal 2007/2012). It is possible that the singular find of a broken marble *jina* in the Bamiyan valley may have been locally carved, given the marble's similarity to that of the Ghazna tombs (see Volume II), though the stone also calls to mind the great marble deposits in the Gujarat–Rajasthan region. Cf. Fischer 1962.
51. Cf. esp. Ball 2020 (forthcoming); for Tepe Sardar, see Ball 2019: No. 1180 for the most up-to-date bibliography.
52. Cf. Irons 2003; Thomas 2018: 26; Malagaris 2020: 36–38, 51–52. See also *infra* in main text and Chapters 3, 5 and 6.
53. Cf. Bosworth [1963] 2015: 75–76 and *passim*; 235; Bosworth [1977] 1992: 61–67; Pinder-Wilson 2001: 165–166. See also Chapter 4.
54. Inaba 2013: 89ff.
55. The genealogy of the Shansabanis recently reconstructed by O'Neal (2016a) makes it possible to associate dates with reigns beginning at the dawn of the twelfth century CE (AH end fifth–sixth centuries). At least some of the reigns and sequences of events can be verified from parallel sources, most notably the ascendant Shansabanis' interactions with the Saljuqs, and the waning arc of the Ghaznavids in Zamindawar: in addition to Juzjani, twelfth- through fourteenth-century sources include Nizami 'Aruzi (fl. early twelfth century), Ibn al-Athir (1160–1233), Juvaini (1226–1283), and Rashid al-Din (1247–1318). Cf. Ghafur 1960.
56. This extrapolation is derived from studies of the imperial Saljuqs who, even after Tughril's adoption of the title *Sultan* (1038) and Malik Shah's (r. 1053–1092) move from Rayy to Isfahan as his seat of political power, "the dynasty pursued an itinerant lifestyle, not from town to town, but rather from pasture to pasture" (Durand-Guédy 2013a: 172).
57. Cf. Juzjani vol. I, 1963: 335–336 (trans. vol. I, 1881: 339–340) for Saif al-Din Suri's division and distribution of patrimony among his brothers. Barfield (1993: 100–102) observed that modern nomadic pastoralists in southwestern